the 1960s–1970s, indicating that it too had collapsed by this time. A print of Tate's photograph of the Nad-i Ali tower remnant (1910–1912: 202 and facing) is also in the Royal Geographic Society's collection (London). Cf. also O'Kane 1984: pl. XIVc.

70. Sistan as a source for the skilled laborers required to build the *minar* at Da Qadi can be supported by its proximity. However, according to the extensive surveys and documentation by Fischer (and his larger team) throughout Sistan, the region was distinguishable from many other parts of Afghanistan in the local architecture's frequent combination of mud and burnt brick, particularly in the decorative elements. Cf. Fischer 1971: 50; Fischer et al. 1974: illus. 252–254; Tate [1910] 1977: 22, 270 and facing figures; O'Kane 1984: 90. Indeed, the possibly early date and peculiar form of the region's brick towers – cf. above in notes – only reinforce Fischer's observations regarding Sistan's architectural distinctiveness.
71. For Ghazna, see Pinder-Wilson 2000: 155. Tate ([1910] 1977: 271) estimated the Qasimabad *minar* to be "one hundred feet [*c.* 30 meters] … at the outside." Hillenbrand (1994: 148) confirmed that Saljuq *minar*s generally reached heights of about 30 meters. Cf. also Bloom 1989: 170–172.
72. Thomas et al. 2014: 137.
73. For Ghazna as a comparative example, see Appendix, Afghanistan VI.
74. Thomas et al. 2014: 138.
75. N. Yoffee, pers. comm., November 2017; also Barfield 1993: 106–107. Barth (1961: esp. 105–110) documented just such a process of "patchwork" sedentarization among the Basseri, i.e., affecting only parts of the self-identified group, rather than *en masse*. Sedentarization among nomadic groups is a known phenomenon (cf. also Golden 2013: 30), though the processes' *specifics* differed in each instance, depending at least in part on a region's unique circumstances, including economic bases and travel networks, both of which the nomads helped to shape or shift over time depending on their activities. These specifics and the economic factors prompting them, as well as the larger consequences for nomadism in general, continue to be debated: see Barfield 1981: 165–170 for a succinct differentiation of studies on nomadism in Iran (esp. Barth 1961), whose Basseri subjects have been considered the most comparable example here) and Afghanistan.
76. E.g., Mahmud 2009: 60.
77. Bosworth 1961:125.
78. Here, I take up Jackson's (2017: 333 and *passim*) meaningful chapter subheading "The Choice of Islam." The author has provided a significant (if brief) overview of the various contingent factors in religious conversion, demonstrating that adopting Islam – or indeed any other transregional socio-religious system – as the "state" religion was the result of many historical and regional contingencies. In the case of the several Mongol khanates, for example, shifting from adherence to and patronage of their small-scale ritual practices to larger religious systems varied widely, with the eastern khanates opting for Tantric Tibetan Buddhism precisely as a statement of contrast from their mainstream Chinese Buddhist subjects. Thus, "it was not necessarily the case … that the Chinggisid princes of Western Asia would succumb to